

DOES COLLEGE DEBATE INHERIT A LACK OF DIVERSITY FROM HIGH SCHOOL DEBATE?

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Competitive debate is among the most effective pedagogical activities available to reinforce classroom instruction in communication skills. However, there is growing concern among coaches and participants about the extent to which debate is open and attractive for all students. Many scholars have expressed alarm about a perceived lack of gender, racial, and ethnic diversity in the debate community. This perception has led some to assert that the culture and structure of debate generally inhibits participation among women and minority students.

Most of the data upon which these assertions rest are derived from studies of intercollegiate policy debate that may not necessarily reflect the demographic characteristics of the entire debate community. In particular, there has been little analysis or discussion in the literature about the characteristics and behavior of *high school students* who are involved in debate. Knowledge of this population can provide an improved understanding of diversity in debate. This paper examines a nationally representative sample of adolescents in the United States to determine the characteristics and behavior of high school students who participate in debate.

Literature Review

To date there has been no systematic attempt to analyze the demographic characteristics of adolescents in the U.S. who participate in competitive debate. Most investigations on diversity in debate have focused upon the intercollegiate debate community, in particular the membership of organizations that feature policy-style debate (i.e., NDT and CEDA). It is beyond the scope of this paper to provide a comprehensive summary of this research.

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However, it is important to explore the general characteristics of the data that have been collected, because these data have produced the foundation for an emerging consensus concerning diversity in debate.

Studies of participants at the National Debate Tournament in the 1980's (Friedley & Manchester, 1985; Logue, 1993) provided evidence of a lack of gender, racial, and ethnic diversity in debate. Similar results were found in investigations of debaters at the national CEDA tournament (Logue, 1987), and at select regional CEDA tournaments during the same decade (Logue, 1986; Medcalf, 1984). In the early 1990's, the CEDA commission on Women and Minorities began to administer a survey to all schools that participate at the CEDA national tournament. These data continue to reveal disproportionately low numbers of females and racial and ethnic minority students competing at CEDA nationals (Stepp, 1997b), although a recent study provides some evidence that these numbers are increasing (Stepp & Gardner, 2001b).

Twenty years of data have begun to cement an agreement among forensics educators that there exists a serious lack of diversity in debate. A good example of this consensus can be found in a recent scholarly exchange published in the spring 1997 issue of the journal *Argumentation and Advocacy*. In a lead article, Pamela Stepp (1997b) introduces five years (1991-1995) of data from CEDA nationals and concludes that the demographic characteristics of the intercollegiate debate community have "not kept up with the changing college population, nor does it [the community] reflect our future workforce" (p. 177). David Frank (1997), one of the scholars invited to comment on Stepp's argument, concurs with her observation that intercollegiate debate is not diverse, and praises the "careful longitudinal research of the debate system...[which] should put to rest any notion that intercollegiate debate is an open activity" (p. 195). Amy Fugate, another critic invited to comment on Stepp's work, also acknowledges a lack of diversity in debate. "Stepp's literature review points out alarming statistics on gender and minority representation" (Fugate, 1997, p. 191).

Although there are some minor disagreements between these scholars concerning the causes of, and possible remedies for a lack of diversity,¹ if the conversation between Stepp,

¹ For example, Stepp (1997a, p. 181) argues that men and women are socialized to hold different values and beliefs, but contends that debate encourages methods of argument and reasoning that are less likely to appeal to women. By contrast, Frank (1997) suggests that the larger problem may be a failure in the debate community to aggressively combat intimidating or harassing behavior. And while Stepp (1997b) is concerned that the community pursues topics and resolutions that are out of

Frank, and Fugate is in any way representative of the emerging consensus about diversity in debate, we can summarize:

- 1) The debate community is confident in the quality and comprehensiveness of the available data concerning the demographic characteristics of debate.
- 2) On the basis of these data, the debate community believes that there is a systematic under representation of female and racial and ethnic minority students in debate.

The forensics community undoubtedly should be concerned about diversity and representation in debate (indeed, in all aspects of the public sphere). Surely, however, it is essential to have an accurate picture of minority and gender representation in order to address disparities. Does the community really have a clear and complete picture? We suggest that the consensus about a lack of diversity in debate is based upon an unwarranted sense of confidence in the available data. For example, Stepp (1997b, p. 176) concludes: “demographic studies indicate that those who participate in debate do not represent the number of women and minorities who attend colleges and universities.” Stepp’s review of the literature is thorough yet reveals pervasive and troublesome methodological problems.

The current consensus about diversity in debate rests on data typically derived from a questionable sampling design. As we have noted above, the predominate method of obtaining demographic or attitudinal data about the debate community has involved interviewing students and coaches at large tournaments. For example, perhaps the most up-to-date and comprehensive data available concerning the demographic characteristics of debate is a 10 year study of participants at the CEDA national tournament (Stepp & Gardner, 2001b). In social science vernacular, data derived in this manner are known as convenience samples. Studies that employ convenience samples are often used in social science research because they are relatively cost-effective to administer, and it is easy to access a population of interest. This is certainly true for studies of debaters at tournaments, because debaters are brought together in time and place, and researchers can be certain that everyone who is sampled belongs to the debate organization.

However, convenience samples are never appropriate if the goal of research is to gain a valid representation of a larger population, because there is no sampling mechanism to ensure that all potential segments of the population are on hand for study (Singleton, Straits,

step with the concerns of minority groups, Fugate (1997) emphasizes the structure of tournament formats and lack of scholarships that may discourage higher rates of participation in debate.

& Straits, 1993). Even so-called open invitation, national championship debate competitions cannot ensure that a random and representative sample of all debaters has been drawn. At best, data drawn from such convenience samples might support a conclusion that the most competitive segments of the intercollegiate debate community lack diversity. However, the available evidence does not (at present) conclusively demonstrate a lack of diversity among debate programs generally. This problem is compounded when one considers that most studies of college debaters have examined policy-oriented (e.g., NDT and CEDA) debate. For the most part (cf. Logue, 1993), the community has failed to consider the demographic characteristics of other college debate organizations.

Research Question

It is also surprising to discover that to this point, there has been almost no consideration of the demographic characteristics of adolescents who participate in debate. A thorough examination of this population is long overdue. We suggest that what can be learned about the demographics of the adolescent debate population could contribute to greater understanding about diversity in intercollegiate debate. Obviously, high school debaters constitute a substantial proportion of the individuals who eventually compete in college. Knowledge about these students may illuminate the degree to which the demographic characteristics of intercollegiate debate are “inherited” from the population of adolescent debaters.

Moreover, we contend that much of the culture and structure of high school debate is shaped by what happens at the college level. For example, high school coaches and many judges for high school events are often recruited from the ranks of current or former college competitors, providing an opportunity for college participants to have considerable influence on high school debate. In addition, many adolescent students participate in summer debate workshops that are run and taught by college coaches and competitors. Thus, the culture and prevailing styles of argumentation found in intercollegiate debate influence many high school debaters throughout the country.

An evaluation of the demographic characteristics of high school debaters allows an opportunity to determine whether the culture of debate and the methods of argumentation are corrosive to the goal of promoting gender, racial, and ethnic diversity. If debate is indeed eminently hostile to the interests of women and students of color, as some scholars contend, we would expect to find high school programs saturated with negative attitudes and

burdened by structural barriers, thus turning off a disproportionate number of these students to competitive debate. By contrast, if we observe that high school debate is diverse, such a finding should shift the dialogue toward targeted investigations of specific intercollegiate competitions and institutions that may inhibit full participation.

Some studies of the extracurricular activities of high school students already can be found in the social science literature. (e.g., Eccles & Barber, 1999). However, they are not suitable to answer the current issues framed by this paper. Many studies of student participation in high school extracurricular activities either do not isolate debate clubs for consideration or do not draw representative samples from which one can generalize to a national population of adolescent students (e.g., Littlefield, 2001).

Method

Data

We seek to address these empirical questions through a secondary analysis of the National Longitudinal Study of Adolescent Health, also known as “Add Health.” The Add Health study is a nationally representative, probability-based survey of adolescents conducted between 1994 and 1996. The sample was collected to help explain adolescent health and health behaviors, but the data contain information about a wide variety of behaviors and contexts that make it suitable for many types of analyses.

The sampling design of Add Health has been described in detail elsewhere (Bearman, Jones, & Udry, 1997; Resnick, Bearman, & Blum, 1997). Briefly, 80 high schools were randomly selected from a roster of all high schools in the United States stratified by enrollment, region, urbanicity, type of school, and racial / ethnic mix. Subsequently, the largest feeder school (junior high or middle school) was selected when one existed; thus, a total of 132 schools (79% response rate) participated.

The present investigation makes use of the first wave of the Add Health study. All students who completed the in-school questionnaire (plus those who did not complete a questionnaire but were listed on a school roster) were eligible for selection into a core in-home sample. When weighted, this multi-stage probability sample is nationally representative of all adolescents in grades 7-12 in the U.S. We deleted cases that did not have a valid sample weight for this first wave, in-home sample (Chantala & Tabor, 1999), leaving a base sample of 18,924 adolescents. After censoring observations with missing data or invalid responses, we were left with 14,106 cases with which to conduct our analyses. All

results are computed using the SUDAAN statistical software package which, when used with appropriate sample weights, is specifically designed to deal with multi-stage probability samples such as Add Health and provide nonbiased population-level estimates (Chantala and Tabor, 1999).

Procedure

In one section of the Add Health survey, students were provided with a list of clubs and teams that are found at many schools. Respondents were asked to identify any in which they participated (or planned to participate in later that year).² One of the categories was *debate team*. We identified 329 students (when weighted, approximately 2.5% of our nationally representative sample of adolescents) who reported participation in their school's debate team. We used information concerning the remaining activities to construct five measures of extracurricular activities: *all clubs* (excluding debate teams), *language clubs*, *arts clubs* (e.g., band, drama), *academic clubs* (e.g., computer, science, student council), and *sports teams*. (The coding scheme and list of activities is detailed in the Appendix.) For each student, we determined whether they participated (or intended to participate) in any of the activities contained in each of the five categories, as well as the total number of activities reported in each measure.

It is noteworthy that no specific response category for *speech team* was available on the survey. This omission rules out an opportunity to directly investigate diversity in speech, and also warrants an advisory note. Many forensics programs include both debate and speech activities. In the absence of a specific category for speech, it is conceivable that some respondents reported participation in debate when they actually participated in speech. Others may be involved in both debate and speech. Nevertheless, the response category is unambiguous: *debate team*. For this reason we believe it is appropriate to draw a *prima facie* conclusion that we have isolated the population of adolescents in the Add Health sample who participate in debate. In principle, all studies relying upon self-report data face similar interpretation issues, including existing data concerning diversity in intercollegiate debate. For example, in studies of debaters who compete at CEDA nationals, it is likely that some of the participants also participate in other forms of debate and competitive speech events at other tournaments.

² The "plan to participate" language was included because some students were sampled during the summer months when their school was not in session.

In addition to data about school activities, each student identified their gender, whether they were of Hispanic origin, and their racial background. Students who identified more than one racial or ethnic category were coded into a single category according to the following hierarchical classification: Hispanic, Black, Asian / Pacific Islander, Native American / Alaska Native, Other Race, and White. Thus, for example, a student would be classified as “Hispanic” if they selected that group, regardless of whether they selected other categories. By contrast, an adolescent was coded as “White” if and only if they identified themselves as White and did not select any of the other available categories.

Results

In table 1 we report the gender, racial, and ethnic characteristics of the students in the sample. We also compare the demographic characteristics of the debate subpopulation with the characteristics of non-debaters, and perform a chi-square statistical test to determine the probability that any observed differences between the groups could be attributable to chance.

Table 1
Demographic Characteristics (N = 14,106)

Variable	All Students		Debater		Non-Debater		X ²	p
	N	%	N	%	N	%		
Gender							5.85	0.0177
Male	6780	49.60	118	39.15	6662	49.81		
Female	7326	50.64	211	60.85	7115	50.19		
Total	14106		329		13777			
Race / Ethnicity							7.34	0.205
Hispanic	2739	12.64	55	10.49	2684	12.68		
Black	3017	15.58	102	29.55	2915	15.30		
Asian / Pacific Isl.	1133	4.60	34	6.10	1099	4.57		
Nat. Amer. / Ak. Nat.	419	3.95	8	5.05	411	3.92		
Other Race	269	2.30	11	1.44	258	2.32		
White	6529	60.94	119	47.37	6410	61.21		
White / Non-White							4.28	0.040
White	6529	60.94	119	47.37	6410	61.21		
Non-White	7577	39.06	210	52.63	7367	38.79		

Note. Percentages and significance tests reported using weighted data; raw counts reported without weights.

The first two columns in table 1 identify the gender and racial composition of all 14,106 students in the sample. The gender ratio for all students is close to 50/50. White students represent approximately 61 percent of the total population of adolescents. The next two largest racial and ethnic groups are Black students (15.58%) and Hispanic students (12.64%).

The distribution of these characteristics among debaters ($N=329$) and non-debaters ($N = 13,777$) is reported in columns 3-6 in table 1. The data reveal a difference in the gender distribution between the two populations. While the non-debate population contains a gender distribution that is roughly the same as the total sample (about 50/50), we observe that over 60 percent of debaters are females. In other words, females are *over represented* among high school debaters, relative to the proportion that is observed among other students. A chi-square test calculated using the weighted data ($X^2 = 5.85$, 1_{df}, $p = 0.017$) demonstrates that these results are statistically significant. Thus, we can be very confident that the proportion of female adolescents participating in debate is greater than one might expect, given the gender ratio observed for non-debaters.

The data concerning the racial and ethnic characteristics of the students are reported in the middle section of table 1. Compared to adolescents who did not report participating in debate, the debate population initially appears to have a lower than expected proportion of White students. About 47 percent of debaters were coded as White, compared with over 61 percent of the non-debate student population. By contrast, Blacks made up almost 30 percent of debate students, which is about double the proportion (15.30%) identified among non-debaters. A test for significance ($X^2 = 7.34$, 5_{df}, $p = 0.205$) reveals that the observed differences in the distributions among all racial and ethnic groups is not statistically discernible. However, this is certainly good news, for it reveals *no under representation* of racial and ethnic minority students in debate.

To explore this issue further, we collapsed our original race variable into a dichotomous measure—White and non-White. This strategy allows us to determine if Whites are under represented in debate, relative to a grouping that contains all non-White students. The results of the analyses, shown in the bottom of table 1, reveal that *White students are indeed under represented* in the debate population, relative to their proportion among all students, and that this difference is statistically significant ($X^2 = 4.28$, 1_{df}, $p = 0.04$).

We next consider the extracurricular activities of the students in the sample. Some members of the debate community are concerned that participation in debate may decline in

college because (among other reasons) intercollegiate competitions require an extraordinary time commitment for preparation and travel (Fugate, 1997; Williams, McGee, & Worth, 2001). Given that the Add Health sample is composed of adolescents who are not in college, we cannot test this hypothesis directly. However, we can look for support by considering the level of involvement in extracurricular activities among students who completed the Add Health survey. If rates of participation in extracurricular activities differ between debaters and non-debaters, this may clarify reasons why otherwise motivated debaters may avoid (or curtail participation in) debate once they enter college. We may also determine if extracurricular involvement varies by race, gender, or ethnicity, and consider how this might influence diversity in debate. Perhaps the high proportions of females and racial and ethnic minority students in debate that we have discovered are the result of a greater propensity of these students to participate in all extracurricular activities. The next two tables of data are designed to explore these questions.

Table 2
Student Participation in Extracurricular Activities (N = 14,106)

Variable	All	Debater	Non-Debater	t	p
	% reporting 1+ (mean)	% reporting 1+ (mean)	% reporting 1+ (mean)		
Any Activity (excl. debate)	77.31% (2.26)	98.95% (6.50)	76.88% (2.18)	6.63	0.000
Language Clubs	12.08% (0.13)	40.35% (0.65)	11.51% (0.12)	4.89	0.000
Arts Clubs (e.g., band, drama)	32.26% (0.42)	69.50% (1.24)	31.61% (0.40)	8.24	0.000
Academic Clubs (e.g., book, computer, student council)	26.32% (0.42)	68.41% (1.95)	26.94% (0.39)	6.64	0.000
Sports Clubs	54.46% (1.09)	69.42% (2.10)	54.15% (1.07)	3.68	0.000

Note. Percentages, means, and significance tests reported using weighted data.

In table 2, we report two measures of student involvement in each of five different constellations of extracurricular activities: all clubs (excluding debate), language clubs, arts clubs, academic clubs, and sports clubs. One set of variables assesses the prevalence of involvement by identifying the proportion of students reporting participation in at least one type of activity in an associated group. A second set of measures reports the mean number of activities in each category. With these two measures, we can get a sense not only of the proportions of students who participate in extracurricular activities, but also the average level of their involvement.

The results reflect varying levels of participation in extracurricular activities among all 14,106 students in the sample. The prevalence measures range from a high of approximately 77 percent (the proportion of all students who participated in any activity, excluding debate) to a low of about 12 percent (for language clubs). The incidence measures of participation are fairly low, from an average of 0.13 language clubs attended per student, to 2.26 for all clubs combined.

When we isolate debate students in the sample and compare them with students not involved with debate, significant differences in extracurricular participation are revealed. Among adolescent debaters, participation in other organized clubs and organizations is near universal, with 98.95 percent of high school debaters involved in at least one additional extracurricular activity. This compares to only about 75 percent of the non-debate student population. Moreover, it is not merely the case that debaters are more likely to participate in other extracurricular activities, but they participate (on the average) in a disproportionately greater number of activities (an average of 6.5 total activities to 2.18 total activities for non-debaters). Similar results are found within each category: the t-test statistics reported in table 2 reveal debaters are significantly more involved in language, arts, and academic-oriented clubs, as well as sports teams, and they participate in a greater number of activities within each category.

In table 3, we restrict our analyses to the subpopulation of debate students (N=329). The data show that, compared to females, males have a higher level of involvement in 4 of the 5 extracurricular activity groups (there is no discernible difference between male and female debaters in their involvement in arts clubs). For example, male debaters on the average participate in 8.85 additional extracurricular activities, which is almost double the average participation rate for females (4.99). The significance of these data becomes clear when we consider that females were over represented in the debate population. (Recall from table 1

that females represent more than 60% of the adolescent debate population, compared to about 50% among the total population.) Taken together, the results clearly imply that girls are specifically attracted to debate. Debate is the only extracurricular activity type in which female participation ranks higher than males.

Table 3
Debater Participation in Extracurricular Activities (N = 329)

Variable	Gender		Race		T	p
	Males (N=118)	Females (N=211)	Whites (N=119)	Non-Whites (N=210)		
Any Activity						
(excl. debate)	8.85	4.99			3.13	0.002
			6.33	6.38	0.21	0.837
Language Clubs						
	1.03	0.41			2.81	0.006
			0.69	0.62	0.31	0.775
Arts Clubs						
	1.30	1.21			0.35	0.729
			1.15	1.32	0.79	0.434
Academic Clubs						
	2.60	1.53			2.28	0.024
			1.84	2.06	0.49	0.623
Sports Clubs						
	3.25	1.35			3.72	0.000
			2.42	1.81	1.11	0.268

Note: Means and significance tests reported using weighted data.

To facilitate analyses concerning participation in extracurricular activities by race and ethnicity, we again collapsed our original measure into a dichotomous variable: White and non-White. The results of the analyses (table 3) reveal no statistically discernible or substantive differences between White and non-White debaters in other extracurricular activities. Considering the finding in table 1 that showed non-Whites were over represented in debate, we conclude that adolescent minority students are particularly attracted to debate.

Debate is the only extracurricular activity in which a significant difference in participation by race and ethnicity exists, and in that case the balance is tipped toward non-White students. In sum, the data reveal that the greater-than-expected numbers of females and non-White students in debate cannot be the result of a higher motivation to participate in extracurricular activities generally.

Discussion

To the extent that high school debate is influenced by (and reflective of) the culture and structure of intercollegiate debate, the results of the present study can help bring the issue of diversity into sharper focus. Our investigation reveals that adolescent females and racial and ethnic minority youths are very attracted to debate. In fact, these young students participate in debate in proportions that are greater than expected, given their representation among the total sample of adolescents.

We find these results to be surprising, especially given the criticism contending that debate is eminently hostile to women's ways of thinking, or that debate fails to focus attention on issues that are relevant to racial and ethnic minorities (e.g., Greenstreet & Frederick, 1999; Stepp 1997b; Stepp & Gardner, 2001a, 2001b). We do not know what college debate coaches and participants would expect to find concerning the gender, racial, and ethnic characteristics of adolescent debaters, but we believe that many would have presumed a serious lack of diversity. Indeed, the results reported here cause us to question even more strenuously the consensus of the forensics community concerning a lack of diversity in intercollegiate debate. As we noted above, most ideas about the demographic characteristics of college debate are derived from anecdotal evidence, or non-representative surveys of policy debaters and coaches administered at extremely competitive tournaments.

Although we have expressed concerns about the available data concerning gender and minority representation in intercollegiate debate, the research that currently exists may help to explain why the favorable demographic characteristics we have discovered among adolescent debaters may not be reflected in the most competitive segments of college policy debate. If women and minority students are less likely to find success in junior and senior level intercollegiate competitions (Logue, 1993; Stepp, 1997b; Stepp & Gardner, 2001b), this may explain why these groups are under represented in these divisions. After all, students usually feel that it is more enjoyable to win rounds than to lose them consistently. The issue certainly warrants additional consideration. Moreover, if female and minority

students are not treated fairly in competition, or are subject to abusive language and intimidation (Frank, 1997; Stepp & Gardner, 2001a), it is very easy to see why they would not feel welcome. If unfair treatment and harassment is a widespread problem it is essential that the forensics community confronts it and ends it. As we see it, however, these are issues about how particular debate organizations structure competitions or (fail to) sanction misbehavior; it is not evidence that college women or minority students dislike debate *per se*.

We also would like to highlight our discovery that high school debaters tend to be extraordinarily involved in school activities. Many of these debaters may decline to enter college debate programs, or reduce their participation, because they cannot reconcile their motivation to participate in several activities with a lack of financial support from debate scholarships, or the time constraints imposed by preparation for and travel to debate tournaments (Fugate, 1997; Williams, McGee & Worth, 2001).

However, this idea does not appear to provide a satisfactory explanation for a perceived lack of gender or racial diversity in intercollegiate debate. Female and non-White debaters are *over represented*, not under represented, among our national sample of adolescent debaters. If a lack of diversity in intercollegiate debate were linked to debater participation in extracurricular activities, one would expect to observe the greatest degree of extracurricular involvement among debaters who are female or members of racial or ethnic minority groups. Our results do not support this notion. We identified no statistically discernible differences in the extracurricular involvement of White and non-White adolescent debaters in our sample. Furthermore, female debaters were significantly less involved than male debaters in 4 of 5 extracurricular activity groups, a finding that is also contrary to the hypothesis. Coaches may wish to bear in mind that students who are fond of debate are also inclined to participate in many additional extracurricular activities, and consider if this contributes to a depressed level of participation in debate during college. Our findings, however, suggest this issue would not account for a lack of diversity at the collegiate level.

Some cautionary notes concerning the data are in order. The Add Health study included some data collection during summer months when school was not in session. Thus, a small number of subjects were asked if they intended to participate in various activities during the following school year. Although it is surely reasonable to take these students at their word, it is possible that some students reported their intention to participate in debate but failed to do

so during the school year. In addition, the data do not allow us to explore participation rates among the different types of debate that are often available to high school students (e.g., team debate, Lincoln-Douglas debate, and Student Congress). Thus, for example, the data cannot be used to determine if Lincoln-Douglas debate is less diverse than team debate (or vice versa). Nor do we know the proportion of students who also may have participated in competitive speech events.

Of course, the question at hand is whether debate by and large is diverse. It is precisely because our debate variable cannot be parsed that we are able to make a general conclusion about the attractiveness of “debate” to young women and racial and ethnic minority youths. It is for this reason that we question the over reliance on studies of intercollegiate policy debate, which have been used to launch indictments against debate generally. In fact, it is entirely possible that much of the intercollegiate debate community is diverse. For example, some modes of college debate (e.g., parliamentary debate) may be more diverse than what is practiced in other institutions (e.g., NDT, CEDA). It is also conceivable that local or regional tournaments which feature CEDA and NDT-style debate draw proportions of women and minority students that are much more representative of the population than those who attend nationally competitive tournaments. In spite of the widely held conviction among scholars that intercollegiate debate is not diverse, the issue remains unsettled without additional data that can overcome the methodological limitations we have discussed.

The rigorous sample design of the Add Health survey provides a view of the debate community that heretofore has been obscured: a nationally representative sample of young students, from which accurate inferences about the demographic and behavioral characteristics of adolescent debaters can be drawn. These data provide positive and welcome news about the state of racial, ethnic, and gender diversity among young debaters. We encourage the debate community to commit the resources necessary to execute a comprehensive and nationally representative survey of intercollegiate debaters that would include all modes of college debate, and incorporate a research design that can overcome the limitations in the existing research that we have highlighted.

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This research was based on data from the National Longitudinal Study of Adolescent Health, designed by J. Richard Udry and Peter Bearman and funded by grant P01-HD31921 from the National Institute of Child Health and Human Development to the Carolina Population Center, University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill. Cooperative funding by the National Cancer Institute; the National Institute on Alcohol Abuse and Alcoholism; the National Institute on Deafness and Other Communication Disorders; the National Institute on Drug Abuse; the National Institute of General Medical Sciences; the National Institute of Mental Health; the National Institute of Nursing Research; the Office of AIDS Research, National Institutes of Health (NIH); the Office of Behavior and Social Science Research, NIH; the Office of the Director, NIH; the Office of Research on Women's Health, NIH; the Office of Population Affairs, Department of Health and Human Services (DHHS); the National Center for Health Statistics, Centers for Disease Control and Prevention, DHHS; the Office of Minority Health, Centers for Disease Control and Prevention, DHHS; the Office of Minority Health, Office of Public Health and Science, DHHS; the Office of the Assistant Secretary for Planning and Evaluation, DHHS; and the National Science Foundation. Persons interested in data files should contact Jo Jones, Carolina Population Center, 123 W Franklin St, Chapel Hill, NC 27516.

Appendix

Extracurricular Activity List (excluding Debate Team)

<u>Language Clubs</u>	<u>Arts Clubs</u>	<u>Academic Clubs</u>	<u>Sports Clubs / Teams</u>
French Club	Drama	Book Club	Baseball / Softball
German Club	Band	Computer	Basketball
Latin Club	Cheer / Dance	Future Farmers	Field Hockey
Spanish Club	Chorus / Choir	History	Football
	Orchestra	Science	Ice Hockey
		Newspaper	Soccer
		Honor Society	Swimming
		Student Council	Tennis
		Yearbook	Track
			Volleyball
			Wrestling
			Other Sport

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